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Objectives:

8. Necessary and sufficient conditions are one **traditional** approach to describe concepts
3. The process of creating and interpreting symbols is **Semiotics**.
9. Hyponymy is always transitive but **meronymy** may or may not be
4. A sentence is a **syntagm** of words..
6. Exophora is **dependent** on the context outside the text, e.g. proper nouns,
1. Relevance theory emerged in 1980s in the collaborative work of **Wilson and Sperber**
5. **Conversion** is a change in the syntactic function (and usually the meaning) of an item
Without a corresponding change in morphological form
7. Proper names denote **individuals**,
10. thinks, loves, like, have, remains etc. are **stative** verbs and do not contain physical
Actions
2. Meaningful utterances may be the products of **incomplete** utterances
11. Charles J. Fillmore suggested the **six** cases of grammar case.
12. Linguistic **meaning** is a special subset of the more general human ability to use signs to
convey meanings.
13. **Utterance** is a natural unit of speech bounded in articulation.

Subjective:

Q. Connotative meanings are peripheral.

Connotative meanings are peripheral. These are relatively unstable as it varies according to culture, historical periods and experience of the individual. Connotative meanings, compared with conceptual meanings, are indeterminate and open-ended that may belong to any characteristics of the referent, real or imaginary.

Q. Factitive is object resulting from the action or state

Factitive is object resulting from the action or state. Locative is location or spatial orientation. The Objective is the semantically most neutral case.

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Q. Maxim of quantity – says that speaker should be as informative as is required

Maxim of quantity – says that speaker should be as informative as is required. They should give neither too little information nor too much. Maxim of Quality – information provided in conversation to be genuine and justified. Maxim of relation – says that speakers are assumed to be saying something that is relevant to what has been said before. Maxim of manner – says that we should be brief and orderly, and avoid obscurity and ambiguity.

Grice said that hearers assume that speakers observe the cooperative principle and that it is the knowledge of the maxims that allows hearers to draw inferences about the speakers' intentions and applied meaning.

Q. Polysemy is existence of several meaning for a single word

Polysemy is identified using the criteria of —relatedness; when the senses are judged to be related under the same lexical entry, e.g. hook n. 1. a piece of material, usually metal, curved or bent and used to suspend, catch, hold, or pull something. 2. short for fish-hook. 3. a trap or snare. These are the various senses of hook that are treated as polysemy and therefore listed under one lexical entity. However, there is a distinction made in lexicology between homonymy and polysemy; both deal with multiple senses of the same phonological words.

Q. how cognitive theory relates to relevance theory?

In cognitively oriented work, including relevance theory, there has been interest in the structure of the mind and in how pragmatic inference is performed. Work in psychology on mind reading (or 'theory of mind'), the ability humans have to infer other's mental states from observation of their actions, has direct relevance to pragmatics.

Q. explains compositionality principal

This theory says that the meaning of a piece of language is based solely on the meaning of its parts, and the way they are put together. With this theory we come to know that semantics has a very strong relation with syntax. To understand the structure of a sentence we need to have enough knowledge about its components such as noun, verb, adjective etc.

Q. Define Lexical Cohesion.

Lexical devices help to maintain cohesion in the text; i.e. Repetition, Synonyms, Subordinates, and General words. Consider an example, 'I met a person who believes in Allah, Prophets, Holy Books, Angels and the Day of Judgement.' The alternate sentence can be 'I met a Muslim.' Of all the lexical cohesion devices, the most common form is repetition; repeated words or word-phrases, threading through the text. Substitution and Ellipsis avoid repetition; lexical repetition exploits it for stylistic effect. Synonym is; instead of repeating the same exact words, a speaker or writer can use another word that means the same or almost the same.

Q. Define Explicit and the Implicit meanings

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Explicit concern obvious meaning and Implicit concern unobvious meaning. So if something was explicit in a text, it means that the information is clearly stated for you. E.g. Josh was wearing a blue, woolly hat yesterday morning. The colour of his hat is explicit information that we have learnt. However, implicit information is what we are not told but we can guess. E.g. Josh was wearing a blue, woolly hat yesterday morning. We could guess that it was cold yesterday morning because Josh is wearing a blue, woolly hat. The sentence doesn't tell us this information directly, but we know that when it's cold, people often wear warm, woolly hats. So explicit is something we KNOW, implicit is something that is SUGGESTED. Pragmatists are interested in cases where what the speaker intends to convey is different from the words one chooses literally mean. The former is generally known as the implicit meaning and the latter as the explicit meaning.

Q.What are the types of Sign? Explain briefly

- Distinction, highlighted by C. S. Peirce, between Icon, Index and Symbol.
- Iconic signs: Signs where the signifier resembles the signified.
- Similarity between a sign and what it represents. e.g., between a picture and its real-life subject.
- Indexical Signs: Signs where the signifier is caused by the signified.

Q. Hina raised the car with a jack. Enlist the entities which are related to the action verb "raise"

Hina , Car and Jack

Q. explain compositionality principle.

A language is an infinite collection of phrases, sentences and, discourses. Any sentence can be made longer by adding another sentence. In addition, semanticists also have to consider the fact that language is creative – we constantly hear new phrases and sentences never heard before. Semantic theory has to provide an account of the knowledge of meaning which language users have and which allows for their ability to quickly and easily understand novel pieces of language (Portner, 2005, p. 34).

They seek to explain the infinity and creativity of human language by including the principle of compositionality. This theory says that the meaning of a piece of language is based solely on the meaning of its parts, and the way they are put together. With this theory we come to know that semantics has a very strong relation with syntax. To understand the structure of a sentence we need to have enough knowledge about its components such as noun, verb, adjective etc.

Q. why we cannot ignore the co textual context in pragmatics. Explain with one example.

Consider a complicated example to understand co-textual context. _She met (her) school teacher.‘ We get two situations here: First, _She‘ may have been used for a mother who met school teacher of _her‘ (her daughter). Secondly, _She‘ may have been used for a lady who met

Eng-508 Mids solved papers

her own teacher. I met a boy who was very brilliant.‘ In this example, who‘ is pointing back to the boy whom I met‘. With the analysis of previous examples, we can say, Co-Textual Context cannot be ignored in pragmatics to interpret the meaning of the text. Co-textual context can be in a sentence or within sentences.

Q. what are two practical conditions of writing dictionary

Dictionary may be seen as a reference book which is the inbuilt dictionary that everyone of us carries around as part of his mental equipment as a speaker of a language. „Semantic Competence“ is how a native speaker knows about lexical items to understand the meaning. Leech (1981) has used different terminologies for dictionaries such as: Theoretical dictionaries, flesh-and-blood dictionaries or practical dictionaries‘, such as the Concise Oxford Dictionary, compiled by lexicographers – we all consult regularly. It has been argued that the lexical definition, as part of the native speaker’s linguistic equipment, can be precisely represented only by a special formal language (Leech, 1981).

Q. how does traditional logic concerns with semantics

Traditional logic is also concerned with semantics as some of its proposals range from simple syllogism to highly complex logical syntax. Logic makes use of concepts found in ordinary language (and‘, or‘, etc.).

Q. Compositional theory (imp)

A language is an infinite collection of phrases, sentences and, discourses. Any sentence can be made longer by adding another sentence. In addition, semanticists also have to consider the fact that language is creative – we constantly hear new phrases and sentences never heard before. They seek to explain the infinity and creativity of human language by including the principle of compositionality. This theory says that the meaning of a piece of language is based solely on the meaning of its parts, and the way they are put together. With this theory we come to know that semantics has a very strong relation with syntax. To understand the structure of a sentence we need to have enough knowledge about its components such as noun, verb, adjective etc.

Q. Proposition define with example.(imp)

Proposition is a declarative sentence, when uttered to make a statement, that is, to say something true or false, about some state of affairs in the external world. The word proposition has come from philosophy and is the lowest level of language. Propositions are words that exist in the lexicon and have a meaning. A sentence is a group of abstract grammatical elements obtained from utterances. A well-formed string of words put together by the grammatical rules of language (Huang, 2014). The sentence is some higher level of language, it may have many propositions. When a proposition is combined with grammar, it becomes a sentence. We can say that a sentence is a complete expression while proposition is partial.

Q-characteristic of basic color terms

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Firstly, the term is monolexemic, i.e. not build up from the meaning of its parts - the term bluegrey are not basic. Secondly, the term is not a hyponym of any other color, i.e. the color is not a kind of another color. Thus, English red is basic, scarlet is not. Thirdly, the term has wide applicability. This excludes terms like English blonde. Fourthly, the term is not a semantic extension of something manifesting that color. So turquoise, gold, taupe, and chestnut are not basic. English has eleven – white, black, red, green, yellow, blue, brown, purple, pink, orange, and grey – color terms in its system.

Q. communicative principal of relevance theory given by wilsan and sperber

Wilson and Sperber classified Relevance theory into two main principles: Cognitive Principle and Communicative Principle of Relevance.

Any external stimulus or internal representation which provides an input to cognitive processes may be relevant to an individual at some time. Utterances raise expectations of relevance, not because speakers are expected to obey a cooperative Principle and maxims, but because the search for relevance is a basic feature of human cognition.

Communicative Principle of Relevance is an attempt to work out one of Grice's central claims that an essential feature of most human communication, both verbal and non-verbal, is the expression and recognition of intentions. We keep on producing stimuli which gain other people's attention and thus lay the ground for communication. It is the tendency to maximize relevance that makes it possible to predict and manipulate the mental states of others knowing your tendency to pick out the most relevant inputs.

Q. why do speaker rely on implicit meaning, give an example

When speakers appear not to follow the maxims but expect hearer to appreciate the meaning implied, we say that they are flouting. For instance, in Britain, its quite common to say, 'Do you find it's getting a bit chilly in here?' and mean 'I want to put the fire on'. When flouting a maxim, the speaker assumes that the hearer knows that their words should not be taken at face value and they can infer the implicit meaning

Q. Interpersonal knowledge is knowledge acquired through previous verbal interactions

Interpersonal knowledge is knowledge acquired through previous verbal interactions or joint activities and experiences. It includes privileged personal knowledge about the interlocutor. for example, I ask my friend, Do you have a watch? In this example, do you have a watch? can be interpreted as what's the time by your watch?

Q. Hang kan 2014

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A sentence is a group of abstract grammatical elements obtained from utterances. A well-formed string of words put together by the grammatical rules of language (Huang, 2014). The sentence is some higher level of language, it may have many propositions. When a proposition is combined with grammar, it becomes a sentence. We can say that a sentence is a complete expression while proposition is partial.

Q-Saussure distinguished between paradigmatic and syntagmatic relations.

Paradigmatic relations hold between concepts belonging to the same grammatical category. These relations cover a wide variety of associations between words, including morphological and phonetic. For instance, in a ‘red door’ and ‘green door’, ‘red’ and ‘green’ are in a paradigmatic relation to each other.

A paradigm is a set of linguistic or other units that can be substituted for each other in the same position within a sequence or structure. In this sense, it may be constituted by all words sharing the same grammatical function, since the substitution of one for another does not disturb the syntax of a sentence.

Q. Define connotative meaning 3 marks

Connotative meanings include not only physical characteristics but also psychological and social properties (sociability, maternal instinct). These may also include the putative properties of the referent based on certain social viewpoints. Connotative meanings are concerned with the real-world experiences, one associate with the expressions one uses or hears.

The boundary between the conceptual and connotative meaning is based on the distinction between ‘language’ and the ‘real world’. Connotative meanings are peripheral. These are relatively unstable as it varies according to culture, historical periods and experience of the individual. Connotative meanings, compared with conceptual meanings, are indeterminate and open-ended that may belong to any characteristics of the referent, real or imaginary.

Q. Define aspect with one example 3 marks

Aspects have to do not with the location of an event in time, but with its temporal distribution or contour (Saeed, 2004). For example: ‘She is coming.’ (incomplete), ‘She has come.’ (complete).

Q. Partial acceptability with reference to lexical rules for dictionary developments 3 marks

Lexical Rules can be divided into three grades: Actual and partial Acceptability; and those which are totally unacceptable. Actual acceptability is a graded concept If, for example, we take the suffix ‘less’ with a list of English nouns. The principle of partial productivity that we have seen to operate in suffixation can be observed equally clearly not only in other types of word-formation, such as prefixation and compounding but in semantic transfer

Q. Deborah Tannen's view about H.Paul Grice maxim of CP 5 marks

Tannen (1986) claims that Grice’s maxims of cooperative discourse can’t apply to __real

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conversations“. In conversation, —we wouldn't want to simply blurt out what we mean, because we're judging the needs for involvement and independence (Tannen, 1986).

Q. Primary Features of linguistic meanings 5 marks

Linguistic meaning is called 'denotative', 'logical' or 'cognitive' meaning. This refers to the definition given in the dictionary. Any piece of language is structured simultaneously on more than one level – at least three levels are necessary for linguistic competence. These levels are necessary to generate or understand linguistic utterances. For the analysis of any sentence, we need to establish a phonological representation, a syntactic representation, and a semantic representation. One level may be derived from another at a certain stage. The aim of conceptual semantics/ meaning is to provide the semantic representation of a given sentence using the configuration of abstract symbols and contrastive features. This will help one to distinguish the particular meaning of a sentence from all other possible sentence meanings in the language. Therefore, conceptual meaning is an inextricable part of what language is.

Q-Morphological derivation and three types of lexical rules

Lexical rules take general form, within the same formula -derivation of one lexical entry from another. Major types: Morphological derivation, conversion, and semantic transfer. Morphological derivation involves a change in the morphological specification. For example, the addition of an affix to the original morphological specification, which is called the base? Base= Base + Suffix (less). Conversion is a change in the syntactic function (and usually the meaning) of an item without a corresponding change in morphological form. For example, 'catch' [verb] might have been changed into catch[noun]. Other type Semantic transfer often designated metonymy in traditional terminology, for examples, 'Neighborhood objected to his plans' and (Neighborhood=people in the neighborhood).

Q. Grammar category note on gender:

Grammar is not restricted to the study of form or function words. It is concerned, more widely, with categories such as tense, gender, number and with syntactic functions such as subject and object, e.g. 'Ali' (Noun/Subject, etc.). These categories can be on 'phrasal level' as well, e.g. 'Ali the son of John' is a noun phrase. According to Palmer, there are two familiar grammatical categories, 'Gender' and 'Number' but English has strictly no grammatical gender at all. It has, of course, pronouns he, she, it but, these are essentially the markers of sex. The category of person (first person I, we, second person you, and the third person he, she, it, they) is often closely associated with the number and with gender in the verbal forms of languages. The first person relates to a speaker while, the second person relates to the hearer.

Q. Contextual effects and processing efforts

Contextual effects include such things as adding new information, strengthening or contradicting an existing assumption, or weakening old information. The more contextual effects, the greater the relevance of a fact. A new fact unconnected to anything already known is not worth

Eng-508 Mids solved papers

processing, whereas a new fact taken with something already known is worth processing. As far as the processing effort is concerned, the theory says that the less effort it takes to recover a fact, the greater the relevance. The speaker assumes which facts are accessible for the hearer and speaks in such a way that the hearer can make the correct inferences without too much effort. The context for the interpretation of an utterance is chosen by the hearer, and the speaker assumes that the facts are relatively accessible for the hearer. The hearer interprets what is said by finding an accessible context that produces 'the maximum amount of new information with the minimum amount of processing effort' (Trask 1999: 58).

Q. Social pragmatic

Social pragmatics which focuses on various aspects of the relationship between language use and more general social and cultural factors. Social pragmatics is common with the fields such as conversational analysis and discourse analysis.

Entailment with example

Entailment defined by truth – —A sentence p entails a sentence q when the truth of the first (p) guarantees the truth of the second (q), and the falsity of the second (q) guarantees the falsity of the first (p). Let's take an example of the sentences below, where a is said to entail b:

- a. The anarchist assassinated the emperor.
- b. The emperor died.

Assuming as usual that the same individual is denoted by 'the emperor' here, there are a number of ways of informally describing this relationship. If somebody tells us 'a' and we believe it, then we know 'b' without being told any more. Or it is impossible for somebody to assert 'a' but deny 'b'. What such definition have to try to capture is that entailment is not an inference in the normal sense: we do not have to reason to get from 'a' to 'b', we just know it instantaneously because of our knowledge of English.

Q. Homonyms with 2 examples (imp)

Homonyms are unrelated senses of the same phonological words. Different types of homonyms can be distinguished by their syntactic behaviors and spellings, for instance: lexemes of the same syntactic category with same spellings, e.g. lap - 'circuit of a course' and lap - 'part of the body when sitting down' or, lexemes of the same syntactic category with different spellings e.g. the verb 'ring' and 'wring' or, lexemes of the different syntactic category with same spellings e.g. the verb 'keep' and the noun 'keep' or, lexemes of the different syntactic category with different spellings e.g. not, knot.

Q. Transitivity

A term called causativity, is closely related to transitivity where an actor becomes the reason for doing an action

Q. COOPERATIVE PRINCIPLE

Grice (1975) posited a general set of rules, contributors to the ordinary conversation; called

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Cooperative Principle (CP). He (1989) stated, ‘Make your conversational contribution such as, is required, at the stage at which it occurs, by the accepted purpose or direction of the talk exchange in which you are engaged’. Grice never intended his use of the word ‘cooperation’ to indicate an ideal view of communication.

Q. Grammatical Errors: Important

Grammatical categories of the verb, tense, aspect, phase and voice are linked with each other and a small alteration in the order of these categories completely changes the meaning of a sentence. For example, ‘John plays the piano’ can be transformed into ‘the piano is played by John’. Transformation is where the grammatical categories not only affect one element (verb), but also affect the whole sentence. For example, ‘He ate food’ is changed into ‘Food was eaten by him,’ (Passive). Subject and objects are marked by position, the subject precedes the verb e.g. ‘She laughed.’ and the object follows the verb e.g. ‘She –killed a snake.’

Q. Diversity

Portner (2005) has used ‘Possible Worlds’ one of the most popular tools for representing diversity within semantics. Model-Theoretic Semantics Model is based on ‘what reality is like which is useful for semantic purposes’ i.e. truth, falsity or inadmissible. Truth-conditions of sentences are defined in terms of a model of reality appropriate to how language works, with it being a further issue how that model relates to reality itself —intended model— and the —intended interpretation—. Davidsonian Semanticists argue that we can do semantics without possible worlds. They agree with other formal semanticists that the meaning of a sentence consists in its truth-conditions, but think that possible worlds and the like are not the right way to think about truth –conditions. Rather, they say that it’s better to simply and directly express truth-conditions with statements like, snow is white is true if, and only if, snow is white.

Q. write a note on metaphor (3)(imp)

Metaphor is a type of figurative speech. Typically, a metaphor ascribes to an entity a property that it does not, strictly and literally speaking, possess, although not all metaphors fit this definition. Metaphors are not restricted to any particular type of word or phrase (Allott, 1988). The metaphorical element of a sentence can be a noun phrase, as in ‘John is an iceberg.’ Verbs can also be used metaphorically, as in ‘Flintoff drilled the ball to the boundary.’

Q. meronym vary in three ways. enlist with examples (3)

Meronym is a term used to describe a part-whole relationship between lexical items, e.g. we can identify this relationship by using sentence frames like X is part of Y or Y has X, as ‘in a page is part of a book, or a book has pages’. Meronyms vary in three ways: First, how necessary the part is to the whole. e.g. nose as a meronym of the face. Others are usual but not obligatory, e.g. collar as a meronym of the shirt. Third are optional, e.g. cellar for the house. Meronymy differs from hyponymy in transitivity. Hyponymy is always transitive but meronymy may or may not be.

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Q. different types of dynamic verb (3)

- 1) Verbs that have objects are called transitive verbs and
- 2) those without objects are called intransitive verbs, e.g. He ate food. (Transitive), He laughed. (Intransitive).
- 3) Another term called causativity, is closely related to transitivity where an actor becomes the reason for doing an action

Q. dictionary-writing (5)

Dictionary may be seen as a reference book which is the inbuilt dictionary that everyone of us carries around as part of his mental equipment as a speaker of a language. „Semantic Competence“ is how a native speaker knows about lexical items to understand the meaning. Leech (1981) has used different terminologies for dictionaries such as: „Theoretical dictionaries, „flesh-and-blood dictionaries or practical dictionaries“, such as the Concise Oxford Dictionary, compiled by lexicographers – we all consult regularly.

Q.Limitations of Relevance theory:

This theory says nothing about interaction. It does not include cultural or social dimensions, such as age, gender, status, and nationality. An objection that one may have to Sperber and Wilson's model, as with Grice's Cooperative Principle model, is that different cultures, countries and communities have their own ways of observing, and expressing maxims.

Q.Why reference and meaning theory influence semanticist:

Reference as a theory of meaning, the simplest theory of meaning is to claim that semantics is a reference (Saeed, 2004). To give the meaning of a word one shows what it denotes. Proper names denote individuals, whereas, common nouns denote sets of individuals. „Reference“ picks out elements in the real world.

Q.Explain cases Grammar.

A system of grammatical description based on the functional relations that noun groups have to the main verb of a sentence (Collins Dictionary Online). Palmer has given three cases „Agentive, Instrumental and Object“. Fillmore has suggested six cases, „Agentive, Instrumental, Dative, Factitive, Locative, Objective.

Agentive is typically animate perceived instigator, Instrumental is inanimate force or object causally involved. Dative is animate being affected. Factitive is object resulting from the action or state. Locative is location or spatial orientation. The Objective is the semantically most neutral case.

Q.Define grammatical categories

Eng-508 Mids solved papers

Grammar is not restricted to the study of form or function words. It is concerned, more widely, with categories such as tense, gender, number and with syntactic functions such as subject and object, e.g. ‘_Ali’ (Noun/Subject, etc.). These categories can be on ‘_phrasal level’ as well, e.g. ‘_Ali the son of John’ is a noun phrase. According to Palmer, there are two familiar grammatical categories, ‘_Gender’ and ‘_Number’ but English has strictly no grammatical gender at all. It has, of course, pronouns he, she, it but, these are essentially the markers of sex.

Noun class of countable and uncountable, or count and mass. Examples of count nouns are a cat, a book, an apple, etc. Mass nouns may occur with no article or with some indefinite quantifiers. For example, some butter, some milk, little water etc.

The category of person (first person I, we, second person you, and the third person he, she, it, they) is often closely associated with the number and with gender in the verbal forms of languages. The first person relates to a speaker while, the second person relates to the hearer.

Q.Morphological derivation

Morphological derivation involves a change in the morphological specification. For example, the addition of an affix to the original morphological specification, which is called the base? Base= Base + Suffix (less). Conversion is a change in the syntactic function (and usually the meaning) of an item without a corresponding change in morphological form. For example, ‘_catch [verb] might have been changed into catch[noun]. Other type Semantic transfer often designated metonymy in traditional terminology, for examples, ‘_Neighborhood objected to his plans’ and (Neighborhood=people in the neighborhood).

Q. Define Collocation with lexical relations (3 Marks)

A collocation is either a highly frequent co-occurrence of two or more words or a combination of words which represents a fully grammatical structure, e.g. a noun phrase (Sinclair 2003: 173). Firth argued that "you shall know a word by the company it keeps" (1957: 11). Collocation is a familiar grouping of words, especially words that habitually appear together and thereby convey meaning by association. Collocations also define a sequence of words or terms that co-occur more often than would be expected by chance. e.g., Strong tea is a correct expression and Powerful tea is considered as the wrong expression.

Q. Define Lexical Cohesion. (3Marks)

Lexical devices help to maintain cohesion in the text; i.e. Repetition, Synonyms, Subordinates, and General words. Consider an example, ‘_I met a person who believes in Allah, Prophets, Holy Books, Angels and the Day of Judgement.’ The alternate sentence can be ‘_I met a Muslim.’ Of all the lexical cohesion devices, the most common form is repetition; repeated words or word-phrases, threading through the text. Substitution and Ellipsis avoid repetition; lexical repetition exploits it for stylistic effect. Synonym is; instead of repeating the same exact words, a speaker or writer can use another word that means the same or almost the same.

Q. Reference and Referential Expression. (5Marks)

Eng-508 Mids solved papers

Among other reasons, speakers mark a noun phrase as definite when they assume that the addressee can identify its referent. Otherwise, the noun phrase is marked as indefinite. For instance, Andrea: Who's at the door? Bundy: It's the neighbor. In this example, the definite noun phrase the neighbor in Bundy's answer presupposes that Andrea can determine which neighbor Bundy is talking about. Bundy's answer is appropriate if she and Andrea have only one neighbor or have reason to expect a particular neighbor at the door. If they have several neighbors and Bundy cannot assume that Andrea will be able to identify which neighbor is at the door, the answer to Andrea's question would be indefinite: It's a neighbor.

Proper nouns and pronouns are generally definite. Pronouns such as you and we usually refer to individuals who are identifiable in the discourse context. Definiteness in English is marked by the choice of articles (definite the versus indefinite a) or by demonstratives (this and that, both definite). Indefinite noun phrases in English are marked by a or an (a furnace, an apartment building) or by the absence of any article (oil, fire, apartment buildings).

Q. Distinction between Lexicon and Grammar. (5Marks)

It is irrelevant for semantics whether a grammatical category is indicated by a form of the word, by a morpheme or the order of the words. For example, Past tense is marked by the past tense morpheme (-ed) but there is no similar morpheme to indicate the future; future is marked by shall, will, or be going to. The distinction between Grammar and Lexicon can be posed in terms of the distinction between grammatically unacceptable sentence and those that are excluded on lexical grounds. *The boys are in the room. is incorrect but the meaning is not vague. Chomsky invented the sentence Colorless green ideas sleep furiously, which seems faultless grammatically, yet is completely unacceptable lexically. Therefore, if a sentence conforms to grammar, but be completely deviant lexically, it would seem that grammar and lexicon are distinct.

Q. Input relevance

Any external stimulus or internal representation which provides an input to cognitive processes may be relevant to an individual at some time. Utterances raise expectations of relevance, not because speakers are expected to obey a cooperative Principle and maxims, but because the search for relevance is a basic feature of human cognition.

Communicative Principle of Relevance is an attempt to work out one of Grice's central claims that an essential feature of most human communication, both verbal and non-verbal, is the expression and recognition of intentions. We keep on producing stimuli which gain other people's attention and thus lay the ground for communication. It is the tendency to maximize relevance that makes it possible to predict and manipulate the mental states of others knowing your tendency to pick out the most relevant inputs.

Q. Syntagmatic reffernce with lexical relation

Or

Q. Syntagmatic or horizontal axis of combination

Syntagmatic relations hold between two or more words co-present in a sequence. Combinations

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based on sequential relations are called syntagms. The notion of a syntagm applies among others to a group of words and to complex units of every size and kind, for example, phrases, sentences. For instance, in a red car and green car, red and green are in

syntagmatic relation with car.

Syntagm is a linguistic term designating any combination of units which are arranged in a significant sequence. A sentence is a syntagm of words. For instance, both the sentences —I write

what I know and —I know what I write consist of the same units, —I, write, what, and, —know. However, the meanings of these two sentences are different because the units that compose the sentences are arranged differently based on the syntagmatic system - the horizontal axis.

Q. Borderline between semantics and pragmatics:

Both semantics and pragmatics involve studying meaning, but they are generally seen as different fields. Semantics is the study of the contribution made to meaning by the meanings of linguistic items and the way they are combined. Lexical semantics deals with word meaning, and compositional semantics deals with the way the meanings of lexical items combine to give phrase and sentence meaning. On this view of semantics, pragmatics takes up where semantics leaves off. Whereas, pragmatics is concerned with what is conveyed by a particular utterance of a phrase, by a speaker, in a context.

The borderline can be seen as falling at the division between encoded and inferred aspects of meaning, between truth-conditional and non-truth-conditional aspects of meaning, or between sentence meaning and speaker meaning.

Q. Current and recent history of pragmatics

The current state and recent history of pragmatics are too diverse and complex to describe briefly; A few areas of interest may be picked out. Early in the modern period, disagreement on the principles that govern communication led to fragmentation of the field into Griceans, neo-Griceans and relevance theorists. There are also pragmatic theorists who work primarily on speech acts. From the 1970s, many theorists have been interested in developing formal accounts of phenomena, particularly scalar implicature, presupposition, and conventional implicature. This work is now known as formal pragmatics and has close links to dynamic approaches to semantics such as Discourse Representation Theory.

Q. Radical linguists' perspective of semantics and pragmatics:

There are three different schools of thoughts on the distinction between semantics and pragmatics. One group of linguists says that only three fields of linguistics are pure linguistics i.e. semantics, morphology, and syntax. They do not include pragmatics in pure linguistics as it does not rely on logic and ignore it by saying that anyone can interpret language according to his own desire. This school of thought is known as semanticism.

While other group, of linguists holds that semantics is only a study of conceptual meaning but

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real conversation takes place within pragmatics. Without pragmatics, everything is useless because without it meaning will be partial and incomplete. This school of thought is called pragmatism. While the third and most recent school of thought is of the view that both semantics and pragmatics are important. According to them, Pragmatics gives non-literal meaning and semantics gives literal meanings. By concluding this, we can say that Semantics is concerned with sentence meaning - meaning in language and Pragmatics is concerned with the speaker's meaning - meaning in social context.

Q.Three lexical rules

Morphological derivation involves a change in the morphological specification. For example, the addition of an affix to the original morphological specification, which is called the base? Base= Base + Suffix (less). Conversion is a change in the syntactic function (and usually the meaning) of an item without a corresponding change in morphological form. For example, _catch [verb] might have been changed into catch[noun]. Other type Semantic transfer often designated metonymy in traditional terminology, for examples, _Neighborhood objected to his plans' and (Neighborhood=people in the neighborhood).

Q. Differentiate between Thematic and semantic role

Thematic roles were introduced in generative grammar during the mid-1960s and early 1970s. In thematic roles, entities are described by the action of the verb. Thematic roles can be defined as: the roles that referents of the arguments of a verb play in the event or as the state that the verb denotes. A semantic role is the underlying relationship that a participant has with the main verb in a clause. Grammatical relations (subject, object, etc.) are morphosyntactic, whereas semantic roles (agent, patient, instrument...) are conceptual notions. Semantic roles do not correspond directly to grammatical relations.

Q. Explain cognitive principle of relevance theory by Wilson and Sperber.

Wilson and Sperber classified Relevance theory into two main principles: Cognitive Principle and Communicative Principle of Relevance.

Any external stimulus or internal representation which provides an input to cognitive processes may be relevant to an individual at some time. Utterances raise expectations of relevance, not because speakers are expected to obey a cooperative Principle and maxims, but because the search for relevance is a basic feature of human cognition.

Q. Grammatical categories and syntactic function

Grammar is not restricted to the study of form or function words. It is concerned, more widely, with categories such as tense, gender, number and with syntactic functions such as subject and object, e.g. _Ali' (Noun/Subject, etc.). These categories can be on _phrasal level' as well, e.g. _Ali the son of John' is a noun phrase. According to Palmer, there are two familiar grammatical categories, _Gender' and _Number' but English has strictly no grammatical gender at all. It has, of course, pronouns he, she, it but, these are essentially the markers of sex.

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Noun class of countable and uncountable, or count and mass. Examples of count nouns are a cat, a book, an apple, etc. Mass nouns may occur with no article or with some indefinite quantifiers. For example, some butter, some milk, little water etc.

The category of person (first person I, we, second person you, and the third person he, she, it, they) is often closely associated with the number and with gender in the verbal forms of languages. The first person relates to a speaker while, the second person relates to the hearer.

Q. Inter-textual coherence and cohesion

The quality of being meaningful and unified is called ‘Coherence’ in Discourse Analysis while ‘Relevance’ in pragmatics. Cohesion refers how words relate to each other within the text, referring backward or forwards to other words in the text.

Cohesion and Coherence at text level can help the hearer to interpret the text looking at interpersonal, situational, cultural knowledge etc. For example: ‘I joined a party. That was great’. This is a good example of intertextuality. If the speaker skips ‘I joined a party’, the hearer may ask, ‘what was great?’

Q. Actual and Potential acceptability

Actual acceptability is a graded concept. If, for example, we take the suffix ‘-less’ with a list of English nouns. The principle of partial productivity that we have seen to operate in suffixation can be observed equally clearly not only in other types of word-formation, such as prefixation and compounding but in semantic transfer.

Q. Idea theory of meaning....

If meanings are not words, our next guess might be that meanings are something in the mind: concepts, thoughts or ideas. This theory explains the patterns in how languages express meaning in terms of the nature of concepts – ultimately, the way the brain is structured.

There are some challenges faced by the Idea Theory to come up with a sound psychological theory of what concepts or ideas are. Secondly, it needs to provide a concept for every meaningful piece of language (Portner, 2005, p. 5)

If idea theory is to work, ideas will have to have a language-like nature – grammar. Ideas act as a language of thought. According to Portner (2005), concepts are formed by the experiences of people – experiences may vary from person to person. These arguments weaken idea theory.

Q. Linguistic botanizing

Austin organized a group of philosophers whose work is known as ordinary language philosophy. The prevailing method was ‘linguistic botanizing’; to see the distinctions made by ordinary language on the assumption that the way people speak makes many subtle distinctions, worthy of philosophical investigation. These philosophers were drawn into thinking about questions such as ‘what saying or stating involves’ and ‘what else speakers do with language’.

Q. Explain briefly the thematic meaning is mainly a matter of choice. Support your answer

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with at least two examples.

Thematic meaning is mainly a matter of choice between alternative grammatical constructions. In other cases, thematic meanings may be stress and intonation rather than grammatical construction that highlights the information in one part of a sentence.

Example:

1. When you visit a museum and the cat paintings are grouped together in one room, and the fruit paintings in another, you could conclude that the curator favors a thematic arrangement, meaning grouped by topic, rather than chronologically or by artist.

2. You could apply a thematic arrangement to your closet, putting the 1970s disco-wear in one section and your motorcycle gear in another.

Q. Polysemy and homonymy

Polysemy is identified using the criteria of —relatedness; when the senses are judged to be related under the same lexical entry, e.g. hook n. 1. a piece of material, usually metal, curved or bent and used to suspend, catch, hold, or pull something. 2. short for fish-hook. 3. a trap or snare. These are the various senses of hook that are treated as polysemy and therefore listed under one lexical entity. However, there is a distinction made in lexicology between homonymy and polysemy; both deal with multiple senses of the same phonological words.

Homonyms are unrelated senses of the same phonological words. Different types of homonyms can be distinguished by their syntactic behaviors and spellings, for instance: lexemes of the same syntactic category with same spellings, e.g. lap - ‘circuit of a course’ and lap ‘part of the body when sitting down’ or, lexemes of the same syntactic category with different spellings e.g. the verb ‘ring’ and ‘wring’ or, lexemes of the different syntactic category with same spellings e.g. the verb ‘keep’ and the noun ‘keep’ or, lexemes of the different syntactic category with different spellings e.g. not, knot.

Q. Explain Montague's Pragmatics.

The use of the word pragmatics to describe a separate field of study, on a par with syntax and semantics, was established during the 1970s. Around that time, the term was being used in a different way by different philosophers concerned with formal languages. The formal semanticist, Montague, wrote in the late 1960s and Bar-Hillel used this term in the 1950s, ‘pragmatics was the study of any language containing indexical terms’.

Q. Exophora with 2 examples.

Exophora refers to the context which does not exist inside the text. When there is no previous mention of the reference in the preceding text, we call it exophoric reference. Exophora is dependent on the context outside the text, e.g. proper nouns, etc. Consider an example: Ronaldo is a great player. ‘Ronaldo’ is a proper noun and it is being mentioned the first time. While, player is a common noun and does not clarify which sports does Ronaldo play? therefore, situational or interpersonal knowledge can easily help to identify ‘Ronaldo’ is a footballer.

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Outside context can be _Situational context, background knowledge, cultural or interpersonal knowledge. (de Beaugrand and Dressler 1981).

Q. Linguistics relativity by the reference by Saturday whorf hypothesis 5 marks

The notion of linguistic relativity, associated with Edward Sapir and Benjamin Lee Whorf, is an idea that has spread far outside the fields of anthropology and linguistics, where it began. One reason perhaps is that it provides an explanation for a common experience when dealing with different languages. Writers translating between languages have often remarked on the lack of fit between words in two languages, e.g. color words might not have exactly the same range in different languages. The fact that language mirrors cultural differences followed to the work of Franz Boas, an anthropologist.

Sapir (1949) proposed that the particular language we speak conditions our conceptualization. Similarly, Whorf (1956) strengthened the idea of the link between language and thought into the notion he called linguistic relativity. Its basic premise is that the way we think about the world is determined by our culture and linguistic background.

Q. Paradigmatic relation of vertical axis 5 mark

Linguistics often refers to the paradigmatic dimension of language as the _vertical axis' of selection (Oxford Concise Dictionary), e.g. read the following sentence: —The cat was sitting on the rug. Now, imagine the words _the' can be replaced with. The word —the is chosen from among a number of words such as —a, —their, —his, and —my that could have filled the same slot, that is, —the _vertical axis' of selection. And also, —cat is chosen instead of —dog, —boy, or —baby, and —was instead of —is, and so on

Q. Formal semantic with other field

Syntax, Pragmatics, and the Philosophy of language are intellectual areas with which formal semantics makes the closest relation. New ideas in any of these fields can have a direct impact on how semanticists think about language, both in a general way and in studying a particular feature of the language (Portner, 2005). Formal semantics has also connections to the other three areas of intellectual inquiry. i.e logic, computer science, and cognitive science.

The fundamental goal of logic is to characterize valid patterns of reasoning, steps of inference which will lead from true premises to true conclusion. As human language is ambiguous and vague,, logicians have developed artificial and _logical' language. Formal semantics is linked with computer science for both intellectual and practical reasons. Cognitive Science focuses on the understanding of the human mind. The most important component disciplines of cognitive science are linguistics, psychology, neuroscience, philosophy, and computer science. (Potner, 2005)

Q. Note on Idioms...

Idioms are expressions whose meaning cannot be inferred from the meaning of its parts. Usually, these are translated with semantically and not necessarily lexically equivalents in the target

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language. Majority of idioms are homophonous, such as *by and large* or *far and away* (Cruse, 1986: 37). They are grammatically well-formed and semantically transparent expressions. We cannot replace its parts with other semantically or syntactically equivalent lexemes. An idiom is a rigid word combination to which no generalities apply; neither can its meaning be determined from the meaning of its parts; nor can it participate in the usual word-order variations. Idioms involve collocation of a special kind, for instance, *kick the bucket*, *fly off the handle* and *red herring*.

Q. Pragmatics relation with linguistics....

Linguistics is the academic subject that is concerned with the analysis, description and explanation of human language while Pragmatics is often described as being a branch or field of linguistics that focuses on the interaction between language and context. Strictly speaking, pragmatics is described as outside of mainstream or *core* linguistics (i.e. phonology, morphology, syntax and semantics) that are concerned with the analysis of language as a formal, isolated and identifiable system in its own right. Pragmatics stands apart because its not, exclusively, a language itself.

Rather, it is the production and interpretation of language in relation to the context of use. Pragmatics can perhaps be seen as an adjunct to linguistic theory. A phrase that becomes associated with the description of pragmatics was the *wastebasket of linguistics*. To Kasher (1998:104), —Chomsky's own work has largely been restricted to syntax, *but its conception of objective, scientific methodology transcend syntax and lend themselves to interesting applications*, including pragmatics.

Q. Write a brief note on cataphoric expression.

Cataphoric expressions link forward to a referent in the text that follows. This type is opposite to Anaphora

Q. Write a brief note on the term utterance.

An utterance is an instance of the production of a sentence or a fragment of a sentence. The most obvious distinction between the sentence and utterance is that utterance will have spatio-temporal and physical properties while, the sentence does not. Sentences are abstract linguistic structures; they do not have contexts and they are not produced by speakers or received by hearers.

Q. Enlist the 10 widely accepted thematic roles.

Agent is the initiator of some action, capable of acting with volition. For example, Rashid cooked the meat. Patient is the entity/person undergoing the effect of the main action of a verb or undergoing some change in state, for example, John cut down these bushes. Theme is the entity (person or thing) which is changed or moved by an action of a verb, or whose location is described by verb. For example, the book is in the library. Experiencer is the entity which is aware of the action or state described by the predicate but which is not in control of the action or

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state. For example, Kamran heard the door shut.

Beneficiary is the entity for whose benefit the action was performed. For example, they baked me a cake. Instrument is the means by which an action is performed or something comes about. For example, I write a letter with the pen. Location is the place where something is situated or has taken place. For example, the baby was hiding behind the curtain. Goal is the entity towards which something is moved, either literally or metaphorically. For example, the driver handed his license to the policeman. Source is the entity from which something moves, either literally or metaphorically. For example, I took the pen from the drawer. Stimulus is the entity causing an effect (usually psychological) during an experience. For example: The noise of the horn frightened the passengers.

Q. What is the role of Grice's "logic and conversational" lectures in the emergence of linguistic pragmatics.

The modern use of the term pragmatics was emerged by the late 1960s in philosophy. According to Gazdar, 'pragmatics had become a legitimate sub-discipline in linguistics by the late 1970s but it wasn't in the early 1970s.' The key factors in the emergence of linguistic pragmatics appear to be the impact of Grice's Logic and Conversation lectures, circulated in mimeograph form from the late 1960s.

Q. Phatic, directive and aesthetic 5 marks

Directive Function; we aim to influence the behavior or attitudes of others, e.g. commands and requests.

Aesthetic Function is for poetic expressions - the use of language for the sake of the linguistic artefact itself, and for no ulterior purpose, e.g. the message is often conceptual as with effective meaning. In aesthetic function, both the poet and the reader bring a heightened sensitivity to bear on the act of communication.

Phatic Function is a function which keeps communication lines open, and keeps social relationships in good repair, e.g. to show that intentions in communication are sincere and friendly, e.g. greetings, farewells, and routine polite questions.

Q. Evidentiality...5 marks

Evidentiality is a semantic category which allows a speaker to communicate his/her attitude to the source of his/her information. It further allows the speaker to say whether the statement relies on personal first-hand knowledge, or was acquired from another source (Saeed, 2004). There are different types of evidentiality:

Witness Evidentiality: when an information source is obtained from the direct observation, e.g. 'I saw him breaking the window'. It is usually visual information (Eyewitness)

Sensory Evidentiality: indicates that the speaker's evidence for truth is derived from the speaker's own sensory experience.

Inferential Evidentiality: Indicates that the speaker makes his/her statement based on a deduction from facts and not on a direct observation of the action itself. (Aikhenvald, 2004, 2006)

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Q. Tense and aspects

Tense is a category which allows a speaker to relate situations to time. For example, ‘they will cut the grass tomorrow’ is future tense. Aspect System allows the speaker to relate situation and time, and to view an event in various ways: as complete or incomplete.

Aspects have to do not with the location of an event in time, but with its temporal distribution or contour (Saeed, 2004). For example: ‘She is coming.’ (incomplete), ‘She has come.’ (complete)

Q. Explain modality and its types.

Modality is a linguistic category (like aspect or tense) that modifies the meaning of the event or action we talk about to include ways to “influence” the event described. Modality may express what the speaker wants to do (give permission, describe ability, suggest, request, offer, prohibit, express desires or necessity, etc.) It also expresses whether the speaker believes, or is sure that what he or she is saying is true.

Types:

There are two types of modality: Epistemic Modality expresses the degree of knowledge how sure the speaker is in his communication and Deontic Modality shows, where the verbs mark the speaker’s attitude to social factors of obligation, responsibility, and permission.

Q. Explain lexical rules n its 3 grades n types.

Lexical rules are rules accounting for the ‘creative’ or ‘productive’ aspect of the lexicon which allows us to form new words (word formation). Or to derive new meanings from existing words (transfer of meaning). Lexical rules not only explain how new lexical entries come into existence on the basis of old ones e.g., to form a verb ‘googling/googled’ by a noun ‘google. But also explain the interrelationships of derivation that we recognize between lexical entries already established in the language. (Leech, 1981) Lexical Rules can be divided into three grades: Actual and partial Acceptability; and those which are totally unacceptable. Actual acceptability is a graded concept If, for example, we take the suffix ‘less’ with a list of English nouns. The principle of partial productivity that we have seen to operate in suffixation can be observed equally clearly not only in other types of word-formation, such as prefixation and compounding but in semantic transfer. The unacceptability of a lexical entry not allowed for in the lexical rules at all. For example, *sheapable (suffix –able is added should be added to a verb, i.e. adjustable, gradable).

Q. Differentiate between coherence n cohesion

Cohesion refers how words relate to each other within the text, referring backward or forwards to other words in the text. At text level can help the hearer to interpret the text looking at interpersonal, situational, cultural knowledge etc. For example: ‘I joined a party. That was great’. This is a good example of intertextuality. If the speaker skips ‘I joined a party’, the hearer may ask, ‘what was great?’

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Q. Write a brief note on Saussure's concept of notion of value in lexical semantics.

Many of the basic ideas in this topic are derived from de Saussure's notion of 'value'. He pointed out that a knight on a chess board is a knight not because of any inherent quality (shape, size, etc.), but because of what it can do in relation to the other pieces on the board (Saussure, 1959:110). He stressed this relational aspect of language, saying that there were 'only differences and no positive terms'. As differences are in some way related. For instance, he argued that 'sheep' in English has a different value from 'mouton' in French because English has also the word 'mutton'.

Q Differentiate Language and Logic

The difference between language and logic is that language is (countable) a form of communication using words either spoken or gestured with the hands and structured with grammar, often with a writing system while logic is (uncountable) a method of human thought that involves thinking in a linear, step-by-step manner about how a problem can be solved logic is the basis of many principles including the scientific method. The difference between language and logic is that language is to communicate by language; to express in language while logic is (pejorative) to engage in excessive or inappropriate application of logic.

Q What is Compositionality?

Propositions are the meanings that are expressed by declarative sentences; can be the contents of thoughts. The logical meaning of simple propositions is determined by the principle of compositionality. Compositionality holds that the meaning of a whole is made up by combining together, by 'adding', the meaning of its parts. Thus, the meaning of a proposition is composed of the meaning of subject plus meaning of the predicate.

Q What is semantic changes?

Changes in word meanings (a process called semantic shift) happen for various reasons and in various ways. Four common types of change are broadening, narrowing, amelioration, and pejoration.

- Broadening

Also known as generalization or extension, broadening is the process by which a word's meaning becomes more inclusive than an earlier meaning. In Old English, for instance, the word dog referred to just one particular breed, and thing meant a public assembly.

In contemporary English, of course, dog can refer to many different breeds, and thing can refer to, well, anything.

- Narrowing

The opposite of broadening is narrowing (also called specialization or restriction), a type of semantic change in which a word's meaning becomes less inclusive. For example, in Middle English, deer could refer to any animal, and girl could mean a young person of either sex. Today, those words have more specific meanings.

- Amelioration

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Amelioration refers to the upgrading or rise in status of a word's meaning. For example, meticulous once meant "fearful or timid," and sensitive meant simply "capable of using one's senses."

- **Pejoration**

More common than amelioration is the downgrading or depreciation of a word's meaning, a process called pejoration. The adjective silly, for instance, once meant "blessed" or "innocent," officious meant "hard working," and aggravate meant to "increase the weight" of something.

Q What is Semiotics?

Scholars (e.g. Ferdinand de Saussure, 1974) are of the view that linguistics is a part of the general study of the use of the sign system, which is called Semiotics. Semioticians have probed the relationship that may be between the sign and the object it represents or in Saussure's terminology, between signifier and its signified (Saeed, 2004).

Q Differentiate Signs, Signifiers, and Signified

Semiotics is concerned with signs and their relationship with objects and meaning. One way to view signs is to consider them composed of a signifier and a signified. Simply put, the signifier is the sound associated with or image of something (e.g., a tree), the signified is the idea or concept of the thing (e.g., the idea of a tree), and the sign is the object that combines the signifier and the signified into a meaningful unit. Stated differently, the sign is the relationship between the concept and the representation of that concept.

Q What is Signifier?

Any material thing that signifies, e.g., words on a page, a facial expression, an image.

Q What is Signified?

Signifier refers to a meaningful idea or concept conveyed by signifier.

Q What is Sign?

The smallest unit of meaning is sign. Anything that can be used to communicate

Q Who introduced the term Reference and Sense and in which treatise?

These terms were introduced by Friedrich Ludwig Gottlob Frege (1848 -1925) in his treatise entitled "Über Sinn und Bedeutung" from 1892, translated into English as "On sense and reference".

Q Define levels of Linguistic Competence.

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Any piece of language is structured simultaneously on more than one level – at least three levels are necessary for linguistic competence. These levels are necessary to generate or understand linguistic utterances. For the analysis of any sentence, we need to establish a phonological representation, a syntactic representation, and a semantic representation.

Q What is the difference between the conceptual and connotative meaning?

The boundary between the conceptual and connotative meaning is based on the distinction between ‘language’ and the ‘real world’. Connotative meanings are peripheral. These are relatively unstable as it varies according to culture, historical periods and experience of the individual. Connotative meanings, compared with conceptual meanings, are indeterminate and open-ended that may belong to any characteristics of the referent, real or imaginary.

Q Define Collocations.

A collocation is either a highly frequent co-occurrence of two or more words or a combination of words which represents a fully grammatical structure, e.g. a noun phrase (Sinclair 2003: 173). Firth argued that "you shall know a word by the company it keeps" (1957: 11). Collocation is a familiar grouping of words, especially words that habitually appear together and thereby convey meaning by association. Collocations also define a sequence of words or terms that co-occur more often than would be expected by chance. e.g., Strong tea is a correct expression and Powerful tea is considered as the wrong expression.

Q Explain Idioms.

Idioms are expressions whose meaning cannot be inferred from the meaning of its parts. Usually, these are translated with semantically and not necessarily lexically equivalents in the target language. Majority of idioms are homophonous, such as ‘by and large’ or ‘far and away’ (Cruse, 1986: 37). They are grammatically well-formed and semantically transparent expressions. We cannot replace its parts with other semantically or syntactically equivalent lexemes. An idiom is a rigid word combination to which no generalities apply; neither can its meaning be determined from the meaning of its parts; nor can it participate in the usual word-order variations. Idioms involve collocation of a special kind, for instance, ‘kick the bucket’, ‘fly off the handle’ and ‘red herring’.

Q What is Practical Dictionary?

Dictionary may be seen as a reference book which is the inbuilt dictionary that everyone of us carries around as part of his mental equipment as a speaker of a language.

Q What is Co-textual Context?

The context of the text itself is known as co-text. For example, ‘She is talking to her boss.’ We see, in this example ‘her’ is pointing back to ‘She’. The words used in the conversation give enough knowledge about ‘what has been mentioned before? and what is

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going to be'? The co-text of a word is the set of other words used in the same phrase or sentence. Co-text limits the range of possible interpretations we might have for a word. Consider a complicated example to understand co-textual context. 'She met (her) school teacher.'

Q What is reference?

In pragmatics, an act in which a speaker uses linguistic forms to enable the hearer to identify something is known as a reference. Reference is a broader term which covers Exophora, Endophora, Anaphora, Cataphora and Grammatical Cohesion. The speaker uses linguistic forms, known as referring expressions, to enable the hearer to identify the entity being referred to, which is known as the referent. Words themselves do not refer to anything, people refer. For example: 'Mr. Aftershave is late today'.

By means of reference, a speaker indicates which things in the world (including persons) are being talked about. The term 'reference' deals with the relationship which holds between an expression and what that expression stands for on a particular occasion of its utterance. For example, 'My son (person) is in the beech tree' (thing).

Q What is Exophora?

Exophora refers to the context which does not exist inside the text. When there is no previous mention of the reference in the preceding text, we call it exophoric reference. Exophora is dependent on the context outside the text, e.g. proper nouns, etc. Consider an example: Ronaldo is a great player. 'Ronaldo' is a proper noun and it is being mentioned the first time. While, player is a common noun and does not clarify which sports does Ronaldo play? therefore, situational or interpersonal knowledge can easily help to identify 'Ronaldo' is a footballer. Outside context can be 'Situational context, background knowledge, cultural or interpersonal knowledge.

Q Define Deixis .

Deixis is referring expression which points to the referent in the context (whether interlocutors can see it or not), it is known as deixis. There are three types of deixis: Person, Place, Time

Q What is endophoric reference? Describe its types.

The expressions which are used to refer an item within the same text is known as endophoric reference. For example, 'I met John, he has just come from England.' In this example, 'He' is referring back to John within the same text. It is also known as 'co-textual context'.

There are two types of endophora: Anaphora and Cataphora.

Anaphora:

If the expressions i.e. them, this, us link back to something that went before in the preceding text, it is known as anaphoric reference.

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Cataphoric expressions link forward to a referent in the text that follows. This type is opposite to anaphora.

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